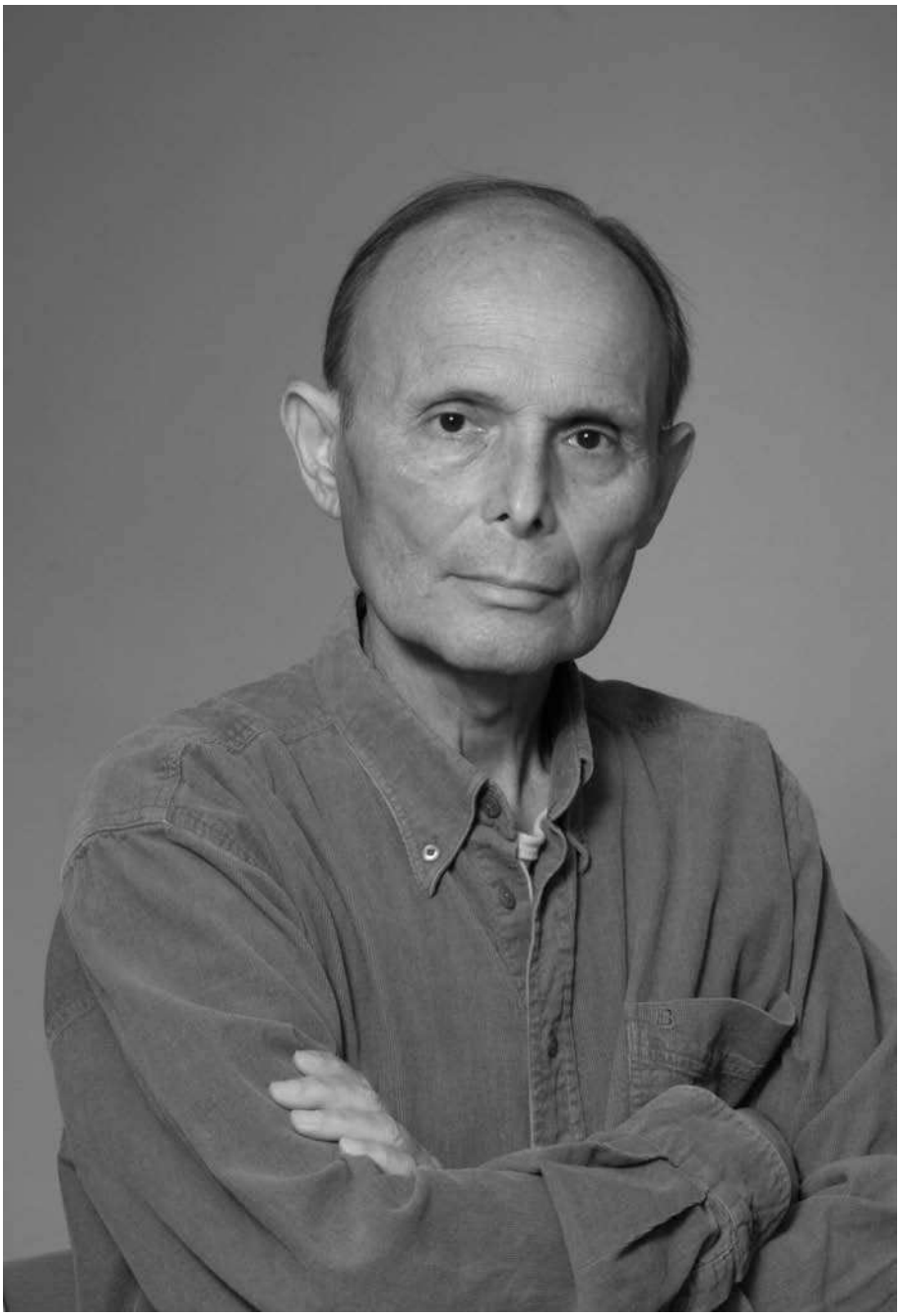
PAX HETHITICA
STUDIES ON THE HITTITES AND THEIR NEIGHBOURS
IN HONOUR OF ITAMAR SINGER



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Pax Hethitica

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The West Semitic God El in Anatolian Hieroglyphic Transmission

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1. Introduction

The deity whose name is derived from the common Semitic *ʾ*ilu*, 'god', and conventionally rendered as El in religious-historical literature was venerated in a variety of West Semitic religious traditions.[1] The role of El (*il*) as the supreme god of the Ugaritic pantheon in the late second millennium is known from religious texts found in Ras-Shamra, such as the *Baʿlu*-epic. In the early first millennium, El (*ʾl*) and Rakib-El (*rkbʾl*) emerge as two separate members of the dynastic pantheon in the Syrian kingdom of Samʾal (Tropper 1993: 264, 276). An Old Aramaic inscription from Sefire lists El (*ʾl*) among the divine witnesses to an international treaty (Fitzmyer 1995: 42–43). Although *ʾl* is usually rendered as the appellative 'god' in the translations of the Hebrew Bible, some of the idioms in which this noun occurs appear to betray a continuity with the earlier worship of El as a separate deity in Canaan, in the period before he was assimilated into the cult of YHWH (e.g., Day 2002: 13–41).

The derived theonym Elkunirsa (*ʾ*il qōnē ʾarṣ* 'El-Creator-of-Earth') belongs to a protagonist of *Elkunirsa and Ashertu*, a myth of Canaanite inspiration attested in Hittite cuneiform transmission (Hoffner 1998: 90–92). In a recent paper, Singer (2007), the honorand of this volume, explores the landmarks of the 'Canaanite' myths from Ḫattusa, concluding that they reflect the landscape of the Upper and Middle Euphrates rather than that of the Levantine coast. This indicates that the Hittite text of *Elkunirsa and Ashertu* represents the result of creative adaptation, which probably took place in Northern Syria and may reflect the spread of the Elkunirsa cult to the Hittite Empire, or at least to its southern periphery. This last conjecture finds a degree of support in the occurrence of ^{d}*Ku-ni-ir-ša* in the offering list KUB 36.38 rev. 8 (Singer 2007: 636, n. 40).

In this contribution I will argue that the unextended name of El (**ila*-) is also attested in Anatolian transmission, albeit hidden in an adjectival derivative. The content of the Iron Age Luvian inscription TÜNP 1 leaves no doubt that its author saw El as a part of his own cultural universe, not an exotic foreign deity. I am offering these observations as a small token of gratitude to Professor Itamar Singer, whose guidance and friendship have been sustaining my research for several years, in the hope of many more years of fruitful intellectual interaction.

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2. The Hieroglyphic Inscription TÜNP 1

The fragmentary inscription TÜNP 1 was found in the village of Tünp in the Oğuzeli district of Gaziantep province in the vicinity of the ancient town of Karkamiš (see map in Hawkins 2003: 142). It is incised on a basalt boulder, the right part of which has been chipped away. So far as one can judge from the shape of the stone, slightly more than half of the inscription is preserved (see photograph in Hawkins 2000: III, pl. 45). It is nonetheless clear from the available part of the text that it constitutes an entitlement stele commemorating the transfer of land, which originally might have functioned as a boundary stone. The inscription cannot be dated on internal grounds, but the latest edition (Hawkins 2000: I, 154–56) stresses its lexical similarities with the mid-eighth-century entitlement documents CEKKE and KARKAMIŠ A4a, both mentioning Kamani, king of Karkamiš, and tentatively assigns TÜNP 1 to the same period. Thus, TÜNP 1 probably reflects the final phase of Luvian literacy in the kingdom of Karkamiš.

Hawkins (2000) provides a somewhat agnostic translation of the inscription's most remarkable passage, rendering 'below, the earth (is) Ia-ean and above the sky (is) Itawean(?)'. In my opinion, this sentence introduces divine witnesses to the act of transfer, i.e., 'below, the earth belongs to Ea but above the sky belongs to El'. Since the new interpretation depends as much on the understanding of the overall structure of the text as it does on the reading of its key passage, it is necessary to present a new edition of this short inscription. The commentary below dwells on those words and passages for which different interpretations than those offered by Hawkins are suggested. Along with the Luvian texts mentioned above, the Babylonian entitlement *narû*-stelae ('*kudurrus*'), which have recently undergone detailed treatment by Slanski (2004), will be used as a typological parallel for recovering the structure of TÜNP 1.[2] In particular, Slanski's dichotomy between the operative division, devoted to the business aspects of the transaction, and the imprecative division, concerned with the protection and preservation of the entitlement, is extrapolated here from the '*kudurru*'-inscriptions to the analysis of the Luvian text.

1	§ 1	[…]ara/i-FRATER.*LA*-ia CUM-ni sà-ta-ti-wa/i+ra/i-sa-na
2		('TERRA')ta-sà-REL+ra/i-na CUM-ni ‖ ('CONTRACTUS')i-ia-sá-ta
	§ 2	a-wa/i ('SCALPRUM')á-su-sa *ARHA* ('CAPUT+SCALPRUM')ku-sà-mi-na
		|*161.ANIMAL(?) zú-ki-sa[… ‖
		(2–3 clauses missing)
3	§ 3	… SU]B-na-na ('TERRA')ta-sa-REL+ra/i-sa i-LITUUS-wa/i-ni-sa
	§ 4	|SUPER+ra/i-la+ra+a-pa-wa/i ('CAELUM')ti-pa-sá |i-tà-wa/i-za
4	§ 5	('PES_2')tara/i-pi+ra/i-pa-wa/i ‖ REL-sà
	§ 6	|*a-wa/i 1 'ARGENTUM'-sa 1 ('SCALPRUM')ma-na-sa

2 It does not seem possible to demonstrate that the entitlement stelae were erected in Karkamiš in the last years of its independent existence in imitation of the '*kudurrus*'. Despite the existence of a number of chronological parallels (Slanski 2004: 302), the complete absence of '*kudurrus*' from Assyrian territory speaks against this hypothesis. My claim, therefore, does not go beyond recognizing the Akkadian and the Luvian entitlement stelae as two parallel genres of 'monumental' business documents that arose in the Ancient Near East.

|1 (‘SCALPRUM’)ma-na-sa-ha-na (‘*419’)wa/i-sa-ha-sa
§ 7 |PRAE-sa-pa-wa/i-ta REL-sa na a-ta i-zi-ia+ra/i
§ 8 wa/i-ta […]-pa[…]
(1–2 clauses possibly missing)

§ 1 […] bought the land from Aralani, son of Santatiwari.
§ 2 The stone is to be effaced?, …
(2–3 clauses missing)
§ 3 Below the earth belongs to Ea,
§ 4 But above the sky belongs to El.
§ 5 One who attacks (this stele),
§ 6 One mina of silver (is a fine),
And one mina (befits?) him as a sacrifice.
§ 7 But…who is not involved,
§ 8 *[Translation not attempted]*
(1–2 clauses possibly missing)

§1. What may be a more archaic variant of the name *ara/i*-FRATER.*LA*-, ‘Aralani’, is attested in the form [1]*á-lá/i*-|FRATER.*LA*-, ‘Alalani’ (KARKAMIŠ A18j §1). Hawkins interprets *ara/i*-FRATER-*la-ia*, ‘to Aratalas’, on the assumption that the Iron Age Luvian word for ‘brother’ was **atala/i-* (cf. Hawkins 2000: I, 132). Rieken & Yakubovich (forthcoming) dissociate FRATER.*LA*-, ‘brother’, from (INFANS.*NÍ*)*aralla/i*- (sic), ‘companion’, and provide distributional arguments for *LA* functioning as a phonetic indicator, rather than a phonetic complement, in this lexeme. The parallelism with the complex logogram INFANS.*NI* / INFANS.*NÍ*, ‘son’, which contains a phonetic indicator derived from the initial syllable of Luv. *nimuwizza*-, ‘son’, suggests that a word for ‘brother’ began with *la*- in Iron Age Luvian. I reconstruct this word as **lani*-, a dissimilated variant of Luv. *nani*-, ‘brother’, and propose that it is directly attested in the compound personal name *Muwalan(n)i* (Laroche 1966: no. 834) vs. *Muwanani* (Laroche 1966: no. 835). Somewhat more remotely, one can compare the frequent development *niga*- > *liga*-, ‘sister’, in Hittite compound names of the Colony Period, probably triggered by dissimilation with the preceding nasal (Laroche 1966: 308–309). For the general discussion of nasal dissimilation as a common Anatolian phenomenon, one will soon be able to consult Katz (forthcoming).

It is assumed that the missing beginning of §1 contains the name and the genealogy of the merchant. Space considerations preclude reconstructing additional clauses in the beginning of the inscription. For a parallel example of an entitlement stele beginning directly with the statement of transfer, see KARKAMIŠ A4a §1–2 (Hawkins 2000: 152).

§2. Melchert (2004) convincingly argues for the existence of the gerundive in -*mina* in Iron Age Luvian (see especially ibid.: 357 for the discussion of the syntax of this paragraph). The translation of *ARHA* (‘CAPUT+SCALPRUM’) *kusa*- as ‘remove’ by Hawkins (2000: I, 155) is based on his provisional interpretation of the unpublished stele İVRİZ 2, but it is not conducive to understanding the iconography of the determinative. I would rather suggest that

the verb in question means ‘to efface’ both here and in EMIRGAZİ §8, 20. Since effacing an inscription requires the application of a chisel, the use of the symbol SCALPRUM is justified in both instances. With regard to the general meaning of the first clause of this paragraph, Melchert (2004: 357) plausibly conjectures that the old property marker was to be removed in conjunction with the act of transfer. The erection of the new stele is prescribed in a similar context in CEKKE §15: *a-wa/i* FINES-*ha+ra/i-ia ta-sa ha-zi-mi-na*, ‘a stele is to be engraved at the frontier’.

For the reading ‹zú› of the sign L 448 in the beginning of the second clause of §2, see Melchert (1987: 201–202) and Yakubovich (2008: 51, n. 58), *pace* Hawkins (2000: I: 35–36). It is presumed that the operative division of the contract ends in a lacuna between §2 and §3.

§3. Hawkins, in his commentary on this paragraph, suggests a possible value ‹a_x› for LITUUS and the tentative reading *iawani-* for *i*-LITUUS-*wa/i-ni-*, adducing as parallels the spelling *wa/i-mi*-LITUUS- for the Luvian cognate of Hitt. *wemiya-*, ‘to find’ (KARABURUN §6; Hawkins 2000: II: 482), and the use of ‹zì›+LITUUS with the value ‹zá› (e.g., KAYSERİ §2; Hawkins 2000: II: 473). He further observes: ‘(the) form *iawani-* (?) appears to be ethnic (?) adj. in *-wani-* but note absence of determinative URBS/REGIO’. The toponym that could serve as a base for this adjectival derivative, however, has not been found.

While it is true that the derivation of ethnic adjectives represents the most frequent function of *-wa/i-ni-* in Luvian hieroglyphic texts, appelatives and non-geographic proper nouns can also provide bases for adjectives derived with this suffix. In particular, one can compare the phrase (‘DEUS’)*ma-ru-wá/í-wá/í-ni-sa*…(‘DEUS’)*ní-ka-*[*ru-ha-s*]*a*, ‘Nikaruha of the Marwa-deities’ (KAYSERİ §8; Hawkins 2000: II, 473). In view of this fact, nothing precludes the analysis of *i*-LITUUS-*wa/i-ni-* as a derivative of Iya (the Iron Age Luvian rendering of the Mesopotamian god Ea) with the omitted determinative DEUS. The rare use of LITUUS with the phonetic value ‹a_x› in this adjective may have another level of interpretation. On the one hand, Ea was known as the god of wisdom among the Anatolian scribes, as is clear from the phrase ᵈ⌜É.A⌝ *ḫa-at-ta-an-na-aš* LUGAL-*uš*, ‘Ea, Lord of Wisdom’, in the scribal appendix to a letter sent from Arzawa to Egypt (VBoT 2, 15–16; EA 31). On the other hand, LITUUS is used as a determinative of the Luvian verb *uni-*, ‘know’; for this and other functions of LITUUS, see Hawkins (1980). Therefore, we may possibly be dealing here with a deliberate scribal pun: the sequence *i*-LITUUS- both transliterates the Luvian name of Ea and hints at one of his functions.

§4. If one accepts for the reasons stated above that *i*-LITUUS-*wa/i-ni-* was derived from a theonym, considerations of symmetry suggest the same conclusion in the case of *i-tà-wa/i-za*. I analyze this form as *i-tà-wa/i-za* < **ilawan-za* (n.), ‘belonging to El’. Although Rieken (2008: 643) convincingly argued for /da/ being the regular phonetic value of L 41 = ‹tà›, she also collected a number of late cases where ‹tà› is used for sequences containing the etymological sounds **l* and **r* in late Luvian. Her examples are *zi-tà* (KARATEPE §31) and *zi/a-tà-* (TOPADA §23) for /zila/, ‘then’, MALUS-*tà-ti-i* (SULTANHAN §21) for /adduwaladi/, ‘with evil’, and LONGUS?(-)*tà-ia-sa-ha-na* (İVRİZ 1 §2) for /arayashan/, ‘length’ (acc. sg.). These examples are explained as instances of hypercorrect orthography postdating the merger of **d*, **l* and **r* in intervocalic position in Late Luvian. The 8th-century

date of TÜNP 1 proposed by Hawkins (2000) is consistent with adding *i-tà-wa/i-za* to the list of these hypercorrect spellings.[3]

My analysis implies that §§3–4 belong to the imprecative division of the inscription. Ea and El are indirectly introduced as divine witnesses to the transaction, capable of inflicting punishment within their respective spheres upon those not willing to abide by its conditions. The opposition between heaven and earth introduced in these two paragraphs has a direct counterpart in a curse formula belonging to another Luvian entitlement stele: *a-wa/i* |'CAELUM'-*sa* CORNU+*RA/I-na* |*ni* LITUUS+*na-ti* TERRA-*pa-wa/i* CORNU+*RA/I-na* |*ní* (PES$_2$.PES)[*tara/i-pi-ti*], 'Let him not behold the abundance of the sky and let him not tread the abundance of the earth' (CEKKE §§25–26).

§5. A detailed discussion of the Luvian verbs *tarpa-* and *tarpi-* can be found in Yakubovich (2002: 202–209; for an earlier attempt, see Morpurgo-Davies 1986). There I argued that the basic meaning of the Luvian verbal root √ *tarp* was 'to tread, trample' and compared it with Gk. τραπέω 'to tread grapes', Lith. *trepénti*, *trepsénti*, 'to stamp (one's feet)', ORuss. *tropa*, 'path', and MHG *draben*, *draven*, 'to trot'. The postulated meaning appears to match the majority of contexts, but a number of difficulties have emerged in recent years. On the one hand, Soysal (2003: 105–106) argues that the expression *tarpa tiya-*, lit. 'to step for *TARP*-ing', which occurs several times in Hittite texts, appears to mean 'to attack, to advance against', or something similar. The same range of meanings matches well the similar context of CEKKE §22: |*ní-pa-wa/i-sa za-ti* STELE-*ri+i* (SCALPRUM)*tara/i-pi* CRUS-*ia*, 'or (if) he steps for *TARP*-ing to this stele', in an inscription that belongs to the same genre as TÜNP 1. On the other hand, comparison with Akkadian texts of the same genre suggests that the crimes addressed in the imprecative division of an entitlement stele were normally concerned with challenging the act of the entitlement or damaging/removing the actual stele (Slanski 2004: 176–177). Although the translation 'one who trespasses (on this property)', implicitly advocated in Yakubovich (2002: 203), remains formally possible, it is not supported by comparative textual evidence. Therefore, I am now inclined to accept the existence of Luv. √ *tarp*, 'to attack, challenge', without prejudging the issue of whether it reflects a semantic development of Luv. √ *tarp*, 'to tread, trample', or merely represents a homonymous root.

§6. Hawkins (2000: I, 156) remains agnostic about the sequence ('SCALPRUM')*ma-na-sa-ha-na*. Two independent considerations speak against the assumption that it represents a single lexical unit. First, it is unlikely to be a neuter noun coordinated with nom. sg. *manas*, 'mina', as implicit in Hawkins' translation, because the etymological neuter nouns in *-an* had nearly completely generalized the nom./acc. sg. extension *-za* in Iron Age Luvian (Melchert 2003: 186). Second, the relative pronoun *kwis* functioning as the subject of §5 needs to be matched

3 As a rather less likely alternative, the same form could be analyzed as /irawanza/ < **ilawanza* < **ellilawan-za* (n.), 'belonging to Enlil'. One would in that case, of course, assume that the Luvian adjective was derived not from the Sumerian name of Enlil but rather from its Akkadian adaptation Ellil. The possibility of syncope between the two lateral sounds in **ellilawan-za* (n.) is indicated by the hypercorrect spelling **a-la/i-la/i/u-ní-* (BABYLON 1 §11, 12) alongside **a-la/i-na/i-*, 'enemy' (KARKAMIŠ A23 §4, 5, TELL AHMAR 6 §5, 21), corresponding to phonetic **alunn*(*i*)- > **arunni-*, 'enemy' (Yakubovich 2009). However, one must recognize that this solution is phonetically more complicated. On the semantic side, moreover, it stumbles upon the absence of Enlil cults in the Levant.

somehow in the following main clause, which apparently has a different subject. I suggest segmenting *ma-na-sa-ha-na* as /manas=ha=an/, where *manas* is the familiar word for 'mina', *=ha* is the clitic conjunction 'and', while *=an* is the clitic pronoun referring to the perpetrator. The transitive verb governing *=an* is presumably left without formal expression.

This interpretation leaves two syntactic fragments in §6. The other passages from the Luvian entitlement stelae that prescribe donations feature the gerundive *piyamin(a)*, 'is to be given', e.g., ('PANIS.PITHOS')*á-za-li-sa-pa-wa/i* DOMINUS-*na-ní* '*419'-*sa-ha-sá-a* DARE-*mi-na*, 'sacrificial (offerings) are to be provided by? the patron of the feast' (KARKAMIŠ A4a §11). The omission of the two predicates in our case may reflect the abbreviation of a common legal formula, similar to the modern *Fine $100*. As a speculation, I would suggest that the first mina of silver was to be given to the property owner, while the second was to be collected by the temple where a copy of the transaction was deposited. This analysis bridges the gap between the base noun *washa-* and its derivatives, which appear to have religious connotations (cf. Hawkins 2000: II: 153b, sub §11; Hutter 2003: 257; Yakubovich 2008: 276). I hasten to add, however, that the number of hypothetical assumptions underlying my translation of this paragraph makes it strictly provisional. The only certainty is that it prescribes a fine for challenging the sale arrangements or damaging the stele.

§7. Hawkins (2000) transliterates PRAE-*sa* as CAPUT-*ra/i-sa*, taking it as a rhotacized variant of the usual CAPUT-*ti-sa*, 'person'. The consistent spelling CAPUT-*ta*/*tá-* in the oblique cases, however, suggests that the last consonant in this stem was the *fortis* stop /t/, which could not undergo rhotacism. Hawkins considers the reading PRAE-*sa* as a possible alternative, but dismisses it on the grounds that the sign L 14 = PRAE is to be endowed with a protruding tongue. The same tongueless shape of PRAE can, however, be observed in a similar sequence PRAE-*sa*$_8$-*pa-wa/i* (KULULU 4 §16). The comparison between TÜNP 1 and KULULU 4 cries out for the reconstruction of the noun PRAE-*s*, although the possibility that the 'tongueless PRAE' represents a separate sign should be considered. The meaning of this noun remains opaque, but a title or professional designation of some kind would be compatible with both contexts.

It is not clear whether the expression *na a-ta i-zi-ia+ra/i*, 'is not involved' (*vel sim.*), refers to the transgression (§5) or to its subsequent atonement (§6). In the first case one would expect to find a blessing formula in §8, while in the second it is necessary to assume that §8 calls for swift divine punishment of the unrepentant evildoer.

3. Ea and El in Syrian Religion

The identification of the Mesopotamian god Ea and the West Semitic god El as divine witnesses to the TÜNP 1 contract leads to a number of questions pertaining to the history of religion in the Neo-Hittite states. On the one hand, the co-occurrence of the two gods in the same text is rare, since they were normally worshiped in different religious traditions. The only corpus known to me where Ea and El frequently appear side-by-side consists of the Hurrian syncretic offering lists from Ugarit (Laroche 1968: 504–505, 507, 509). On the other hand, neither Ea nor El can be respectively defined as Earth-god or Sky-god in their earliest attestations. The

Mesopotamian tradition portrays Ea as the god of underground sweet waters and, secondarily, the patron of crafts and wisdom. El was perceived in the Bronze Age Levant as the supreme god, the creator of the earth and/or humankind, but had no specific associations with heaven. In what follows, I intend to discuss the factors that may have contributed to the changing functions of Ea and El in Iron Age Syria and thereby made possible the juxtaposition of these two gods in the Luvian formula before us.

The etymological analysis of Enki, the Sumerian functional equivalent of Ea, as en.ki, 'lord of the land', does not represent a sufficient argument for assigning a chthonic function to Iya < Ea in the Luvian milieu. If anything, one would expect this etymology to affect Ea's functional profile among the Mesopotamian scribes, something that apparently did not happen. In order to understand the theological generalization of TÜNP 1, it is more important to consider the place of Iya in Neo-Hittite religion. Fortunately, his name appears rather frequently in the Iron Age Luvian inscriptions, and some of the attestations are amenable to functional interpretation. The most interesting passage for our purposes is the curse formula of the KARATEPE bilingual.

(1) KARATEPE (Hu.) §73; Hawkins (2000: 58)
wa/i-ta || ARHA |MANUS(-)ia-ti-tu CAELUM (DEUS)TONITRUS-hu-za-sá CAELUM (DEUS)SOL-za-sá (DEUS)i-ia-sá OMNIS-MI-zi-ha DEUS-ní-zi á-pa |REX-hi-sá |á-pa-há 'REX'-na |á-pa-há-wa/i |CAPUT-ti-na

May Tarhunt of Heaven, Sun of Heaven, Ea, and all the gods annihilate that kingdom and that king and that person!

(2) KARATEPE (Ho.) §73; Hawkins (2000: 58)
|wa/i-ta |ARHA |'*69'(-)i-ti-tu (DEUS)i-ia-sá |'CAELUM'(DEUS)TONITRUS-hu-za-sá-´ |'CAELUM' (DEUS)SOL-⌜za⌝-sá |OMNIS-MI-zi-há-wa/i DEUS-ní-zi |á-pa-sá REX-ta-hi-sa |á-pa-há-´ |REX-ti-na |á-pa-há-wa/i CAPUT-ti-na

May Ea, Tarhunt of Heaven, Sun of Heaven, and all the gods annihilate that kingdom and that king and that person!

(3) KARATEPE (Phu.) §73; Hawkins (2000: 58)
w-mḥ bʿl šmm w-ʾl qn ʾrṣ w-šmš ʿlm w-kl dr bn ʾlm ʾyt h-mmlkt hʾ w-ʾyt h-mlk hʾ w-ʾyt ʾdm hʾ ʾš ʾdm šm

Then may Baal of Heaven, El-Creator-of-Earth, Eternal Sun, and all the assembly of the sons of gods annihilate that kingdom and that person, who (is) one of name.

The two Luvian versions of KARATEPE list the same triad of Heavenly Tarhunt, Heavenly Sun and Ea, though in different order. Ea appears last in the Upper Gate inscription and first in the Lower Gate inscription, which suggests that the relative order of the gods in the curse formula is not hierarchical. The Phoenician version of the Upper Gate, the only one to preserve this passage, apparently features yet another permutation. If we assume that Heavenly Tarhunt and Heavenly Sun correspond respectively to Heavenly Baal and Eternal Sun of the Phoenician version, this leaves us with a correspondence between Iya/Ea and El-Creator-of-Earth, who occupies the second position in the Phoenician triad.

Weippert (1969: 208–209) plausibly suggested that it was Ea's function as the patron of crafts that prompted his association with the creator figure. Lipiński (1988: 143) noted a number of parallels between Ea and El: both are credited with the creation of humankind; the abode of both gods is surrounded by water; and El is endowed with the title *mlk*, 'king', in Ugaritic texts just as Ea was known as *šarri*, 'king', among the Hurrians. But these similarities need not obfuscate the crucial difference. Ea was never credited with creating the earth in the Mesopotamian tradition, since Earth was perceived here as a primordial substance and the act of separating heaven and earth was attributed to Enlil. One cannot, however, exclude that the secondary identification between Iya/Ea and El-Creator-of-Earth in the Neo-Hittite milieu may have reinforced Ea's chthonic associations in Anatolia and northern Syria.

An additional confirmation of this hypothesis comes from the juxtaposition between Iya/Ea and Kumarma, the late manifestation of the Hurrian chthonic god Kumarbi. The two deities occur side by side in three divine lists belonging to the parallel contexts of the inscriptions commissioned by Hamiyata, king of Masuwari (TELL AHMAR 1 §2–†3; TELL AHMAR 1 §2; and TELL AHMAR 6 §2). For present purposes, it is enough to cite the first context, which features the phonetic representation of the name Kumarma and the combination 'King Ea', which probably represents a calque from Hurrian. The fact that Iya/Ea and Kumarma/Kumarbi are listed next to each other can, of course, be explained through their functional adjacency. It is only natural to group the god of the underworld sweet ocean (Sum. abzu, Akk. *apsû*) together with the earth-god, as opposed to the deities associated with the sky or heavenly bodies. But should one expect the inhabitants of Neo-Hittite states to be intimately familiar with the Mesopotamian concept of Abzu? If not, the borrowed idea of Ea's underground abode may have complicated the precise delineation of Ea's and Kumarbi's spheres of influence.

(4) TELL AHMAR 1 §2–†3; Hawkins (2000: 228)
*a-wa/i-mu |á-ia-lá/í-na |(INFANS.*NÍ*)*282-wa/i-ra+a |'CAELUM'-si-i-sa (DEUS)TONITRUS-hu-sa (DEUS)i-ia-sa |REX-ti-i-sá (DEUS.BONUS)ku-mara$^{+ra/i}$-ma-sa$_5$ |(DEUS)'HORDEUM'(-)ma-ti-la/i/u-sa (DEUS)FORTIS-su-pa-sa |ha+ra/i-na-wa/i-ní-i-sa-ha(URBS) (DEUS)LUNA+MI-sa […] (DEUS)k[u-AV]IS-pa-[pa]-sa-ha [*fragmentary forms*] (LITUUS)á-za-ta

Tarhunt of Heaven, King Ea, Kumarbi, Grain-god, Tessub, Harranean Moon-god […] and Kubaba [*and other gods*] loved me, the first(-born son)? as a child.[4]

In order to deflect the possible objection that the juxtaposition between Iya/Ea and Kumarma/Kumarbi would reflect the peculiarities of the state cult in Masuwari/Tell Ahmar, one must refer to the same phenomenon in the CEKKE inscription. As mentioned above, this entitlement stele mentions a king of Karkamiš and shows a number of structural parallels with TÜNP 1. The deities listed in the curse formula CEKKE §24 logically and grammatically fall into three groups. If we set aside the initial Karkamišean triad of Tarhunt, Kubaba and Karhuha, as well as the final pair of the deified celestial luminaries, we wind up with the same pair of Ea and

4 On Luv. *á-ia-lá/í-*, 'first(-born son)?', see Rieken & Yakubovich (forthcoming). I take (INFANS.*NÍ*) as a determinative, 'son' (as opposed to INFANS.*LA*, 'brother'), and assume that the lexeme it determines begins with the rare logogram L 282.

Kumarbi connected by the coordinative conjunction. The only peculiarity of CEKKE §24 is the logographic rendering of Kumarbi as (DEUS)BONUS.

(5) CEKKE §24; Hawkins (2000: 146)
á-pa-ti-pa-wa/i CAELUM (DEUS)TONITRUS (DEUS)ka+ra/i-hu-ha-sá (DEUS)ku-AVIS-ha (DEUS)BONUS (DEUS)i-sa-ha (DEUS)LUNA+*MI*-sa (DEUS)SOL (CRUX)wa/i-la 'PES'-wa/i-tú

Let Tarhunt of Heaven, Karhuha and Kubaba, Kumarbi and Ea, Moon-god (and) Sun-god come fatally against him!

Thus one can claim, using structuralist terminology, that the Luvian form of Ea is paradigmatically linked to the Semitic god El-Creator-of-Earth and syntagmatically linked to the Hurrian chthonic deity. On the other hand, I am not aware of any Iron Age Luvian texts that bear out the synchronic association between Ea and water. These facts, taken together, accommodate the attribution of the earth to Ea's domain in TÜNP 1.

The situation becomes more complicated when we turn to the religious significance of the statement 'the sky belongs to El'. To be sure, the cosmological observation 'the sky belongs to God (*ʾl*)' would be rather trite from the perspective of the Biblical tradition, especially in its later phase. The Aramaic idiom *ʾlh šmyʾ*, 'God of Heaven', represents the usual way of refering to YHWH in the vernacular parts of the post-exilic books of Ezra and Daniel, while its Hebrew equivalent *ʾl hšmym*, 'God of Heaven', occurs in Ps. 136.26. The extended Aramaic idiom *ʾlh šmy ʾwʾrʿ*, 'God of Heaven and Earth', is found in Ez. 5.11, while the Torah features the synonymous expression *ʾlhym bšmym mmʿl wʿl ʾrṣ mtḫt*, 'God in Heaven above and on Earth below' (Dt. 4.39). There is, however, not a single divine epithet in the Tanakh that connects God (*ʾl*, *ʾlh*, or *ʾlhym*) with the earth alone without also referring to heaven. While being the creator of both Heaven and Earth, YHWH was more closely associated with the former, which came to be perceived as his abode in the Judaeo-Christian tradition.

It would, however, be methodologically unsound to reconstruct the role of El in Early Iron Age Syria based on the late epithets of the Hebrew God. The image of YHWH in the post-exilic books of the Tanakh is likely to reflect the indirect influence of the Phoenician celestial deity Baalshamem (*bʿlšmym*) or its Aramaic counterpart Baalshamin (*bʿlšmyn*), lit. 'Baal of Heaven' or 'Lord of Heaven'. Niehr (2003: 185–213) places the spread of the idiom 'God of Heaven' within a broader context of cultural contacts between Hebrews and their Semitic neighbours in the Persian and Hellenistic periods. In particular, he indicates that these linguistic innovations went hand in hand with the iconographic representation of YHWH in the guise of Baal on Samarian and Judaean coins. He also mentions YHWH's titles that represent formal calques of Baalshamem, such as Aram. *mrʾ šmyʾ*, 'Lord of Heaven' (Dn. 5.23), or its Greek equivalent ὁ κύριος τοῦ οὐρανοῦ in the post-canonical book of Tobias. Since the Aramaic phrase *ʾlh šmyʾ*, 'God of Heaven', is likely to represent a further adaptation of the calque *mrʾ šmyʾ*, 'Lord of Heaven', with which it sometimes alternates in post-exilic Hebrew literature, it is not directly relevant for assessing the significance of religious formulae in eighth-century Syria.

The reconstruction of Bronze Age Canaanite phraseology yields a different picture. The rare but widely dispersed occurrences of the collocation El-Creator-of-Earth are summarized in Miller (1980). We have already mentioned Elkunirsa, the hero of the second-millennium

Canaanite myth adapted in Syria and preserved in Hittite transmission, and *ʾl qn ʾrṣ*, the Phoenician counterpart of Ea>Iya in the KARATEPE inscription. To this, one should add *ʾl qn ʾrṣ* on an ostracon from Jerusalem (8th–7th centuries BC), *ʾl qn ʾrṣ* in a Neo-Punic inscription from Leptis Magna (2nd century AD), *ʾlqwnrʿ* in the Palmyrene inscription PAT 2778 (1st century AD, identified with Poseidon in the Greek version), and *ʾlqnrʿ* on four tesserae from Palmyra (PAT 2219–22). The vocalization of the second syllable in Hitt. *El-ku-ni-ir-ša-* and Palm. *ʾlqwnrʿ* reflects the characteristic 'Canaanite shift' **ā>ō* and indicates that both forms represent early assimilated borrowings from Canaanite **ʾil qōnē ʾarṣ*, 'El-Creator-of-Earth'. Miller (1980: 45) is fully justified in his conclusion that '(w)hatever El's associations with the heavenly realm, they are not to be deduced from this title.' But since we have no other philological evidence for the function of El in second-millennium Canaan, it does not seem far-fetched to hypothesize that his associations in this region in the second millennium BC were chthonic rather than celestial.[5]

The attestations of El in the Ugaritic tradition are likewise not conducive to defining him as a heavenly god. El's abodes in the Ugaritic texts are variously taken as corresponding to Jebel Ansariye to the east of Ugarit, Mount Hermon in the Anti-Lebanon or other prominent mountains in the Levant (Niehr 2003: 22). This is not that different from the Syro-Hittite tradition, which locates El's residence at the sources of the Euphrates, as stressed in Singer (2007). Although El is known as the father of humankind rather than the creator of the earth in the texts from Ugarit, none of them mentions El in connection with the sky but not earth, let alone contrasting him with a chthonic deity. Dietrich (2007: 121) even goes so far as to describe El as the Ugaritic 'pendant' of Ea, the Mesopotamian god credited with the creation of humankind.[6]

Against this background, El's celestial sphere of influence mentioned in TÜNP 1 represents a distinct innovation of the Early Iron Age period. To be sure, this motif may ultimately reflect the same broad tendency as the rise of the cult of 'Baal of Heaven' in Iron Age Syria and the astralization or solarization of several other Near Eastern deities in the early first millennium BC. Yet, historians of religion are not content with stating this general trend and try to point to specific influences responsible for the new heavenly attributes of individual gods. Thus Schwemer (2008: 16) regards the Luvian deity *tipasasis Tarhunzas*, 'Storm-god of Heaven', which corresponds to the Phoenician Baalshamem in Texts 1–3 above, as one possible trigger for the later independent development of 'Baal of Heaven'.

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5 Earlier speculations about identifying El with Baalshamin were based largely on the understanding of the Aramaic phrase *bʾšmyn qnh dy rʿʾ* in an inscription from Hatra as 'Baal of Heaven, Creator of Earth' (cf. Miller 1980: 44). This translation, however, has been challenged in recent publications, and consequently, attempts to equate the two gods have fallen out of favour in contemporary scholarship (Niehr 2003: 174, n. 506).

6 As Scurlock (forthcoming) stresses in her reaction to Dietrich's claim, the mention of Anu's vizier Ilabrat as El's messenger in the Hurrian incantation from Ugarit KTU 1.128, translated in Dietrich (2007: 106), undermines the direct correspondence between El and Ea in the Ugaritic tradition. The regular counterpart of Ea in Ugaritic alphabetic texts is Kothar, not El (Lipiński 1988). It is impossible, however, to exclude the possibility that the functional similarity between Ea and El could have led to their identification in some local or personal cults of Late Bronze Age Syria, just as Luv. *Iya-* and Phoen. *ʾl qn ʾrṣ* were identified in the KARATEPE inscription.

The dearth of references to the god El stemming from Iron Age Syria precludes one from suggesting a definite account of his move to the sky in the popular religion of the region, but there are at least two suggestive possibilities. One of them is to assume that his association with the god *ʿly(w)n* (Elyan/Elyon), perhaps triggered by the remote phonetic similarity of the two names, played a role in this process. The Phoenician History by Philo of Byblos depicts Elyon (Ἐλιοῦμ) as father of Heaven and Earth, whereas El emerges from this source as one of their children (Attridge & Oden 1981: 46–49). The facts that the name *ʿly(w)n* is derived from the root *ʿlh*, 'to go up', while Philo of Byblos glosses Elyon's name as ὕψιστος, 'the highest', point to Elyon's celestial connotations. Bron (1979: 187) and several other scholars explain the Biblical phrase *ʾl ʿlywn qnh šmym wʿrṣ*, 'El Elyon, creator of Heaven and Earth' (Gn. 14.19), as a conflation of El and Elyon, which had originally characterized the cult of Jerusalem. Yet the syntagmatic association between the two deities may not have been restricted to Canaan, since El occurs paired with Elyan (the Aramaic variant of Elyon) in a list of divine witnesses accompanying an Aramaic treaty from eighth-century Syria (see Sefire I.11; Fitzmyer 1995: 42–43, 75).

The positive evidence for a paradigmatic association between a form of El and Elyan/Elyon comes from the Ugaritic sacrificial list RS 24.643 (ll. 23–25). The list of gods who receive one sheep in January begins with *ỉlỉb*, who is followed by *ȧrṣ w šmm*, 'Heaven and Earth', and *ỉl*, 'El' (Pardee 2000: II: 781, 787). The parallelism with the genealogy by Philo of Biblos suggests that *ỉlỉb* in the Ugaritic text has the same function as Elyon, father of Heaven and Earth, in the Phoenician account (ibid.: II: 799). Yet comparison with the Akkadian and Hurrian equivalents of *ỉlỉb* in Ugaritic ritual texts, i.e., Akk. DINGIR-*a-bi*, 'god of the father(s)', and Hurr. *en atn*, 'god the father' (ibid.: I: 187), prompts Pardee to interpret *ỉlỉb* as **/ʔilu'abī/ > /ʔilu'ibī/*, lit. 'god of the father' (ibid.: I: 296–299). The interpretation 'El of the father' appears to be equally possible. It is not easy to decide whether this Ugaritic compound is older than the name of Elyan or whether it was coined as its replacement. Whatever solution one adopts, the multi-tier connections between El/god (when not accompanied by the title 'Creator of Earth') and Elyan/Elyon emerge as possible factors bringing about the transfer of Elyan's functions to El at least in some Syrian traditions. The evidence of TÜNP 1 would be consistent with this diachronic hypothesis.

Another, perhaps less likely possibility is connected with the name of Rakib-El (*rkbʾl*), literally 'Rider-El', a dynastic god of the Samalian kings. Such an epithet particularly befits a deity that drives the heavenly chariot, and Cross (1997: 10, n. 32) even adduces circumstantial evidence in favour of identifying Rakib-El with the Moon-god. It is easy to envisage the attribution of the sky to the domain of this god, although the hypothesis that the first part of the compound name Rakib-El could have disappeared in the adjectival derivative **ilawanni-* would be *ad hoc*. On the whole, this comparison cannot by itself prove El's connection with the sky in Iron Age Syria, but it can be advanced as an additional argument for such a connection, once it is established on independent grounds.

Finally, the question of how the Semitic god El made his way onto a Luvian entitlement stele must be addressed. El, unlike Ea, was not integrated into the official religion of Karkamiš or that of any other Neo-Hittite state. Both the name and the patronymic of the person acquiring land in TÜNP 1 are perfectly Luvian, while the patronymic combines the names of two Luvian gods, Santa and Tiwad. In order to explain how such a person could invoke or accept El as a divine witness, one has to address the general issue of the interpenetrability between the Anatolian and Semitic pantheons in northern Syria.

A crucial piece of evidence comes from the kingdom of Sam'al, which was squeezed in between the Neo-Hittite states of Karkamiš, Gurgum, Unqi and Que. All the royal inscriptions emanating from this kingdom are Semitic, although its rulers used both Anatolian and Semitic personal names. The older of the two royal inscriptions in the Samalian dialect introduces a purely Semitic pantheon consisting of Hadad, El, Rakib-El, Shamash and Rashap. All but the last of these gods are also mentioned in the later inscription. By contrast, the inscription of a certain Kuttamuwa, identified as a servant of Panamuwa, king of Sam'al, contains an offering list featuring a substantially different divine set:

(6) Kuttamuwa l. 3–5; Pardee (2009)
šwr lhdd qrpdl wybl l ngd/r ṣwd/rn wybl l šmš wybl lhdd krmn wybl lkbbw

… a bull for Hadad *harpatalli*, a ram for NGD/R ṢWD/RN, a ram for Shamash, a ram for Hadad of the Vineyards, a ram for Kubaba…

Among the gods mentioned in (6), only Shamash constitutes a clear intersection with the divine lists of Samalian royal inscriptions. One of the two Hadads is modified by a (likely) Luvian title *harpatalli*,[7] while the other one finds a direct parallel in *tu-wa/i+ra/i-sà-sa* (DEUS)TONITRUS-*hu-za-sa*, 'Tarhunt of the Vineyard' (SULTANHAN §8). The identity of NGD/R ṢWD/RN remains uncertain, while Kubaba is a well-known Syrian goddess of non-Semitic origin. It follows from this analysis that Kuttamuwa did not try to copy the Semitic pantheon of his rulers, but rather assembled a regionally representative divine array of his own.[8] Pardee plausibly hypothesizes that official inscriptions were more attuned to political concerns, which leaves open the possibility that religious eclecticism represented the usual state of affairs among private individuals in Early Iron Age Syria.[9]

The same hypothesis can be applied to TÜNP 1, an inscription that does not mention the rulers of Karkamiš, at least in its preserved part. The commissioner of the stele, probably Aralani, may have decided to dispense with the official Karkamišean triad and to present his personal theology in the curse formula. But the manner in which the two theonyms were recorded may be indicative of the scribe's attitude toward this innovation. The determinative

7 I propose that (1) *harpatalli*, the likely reading of *qrpdl*, represents a derivative of the Luvian root √ *harp*, 'to associate oneself, to join'; for the Hittite cognate, see Melchert (forthcoming); and (2) this divine title means 'companion' or something similar. As long as no comparable title is attested in Luvian proper, my etymology cannot be considered assured. Note, however, that the Anatolian character of this title is supported not only by the proposed etymology, but also by the general shape of the word, which appears to be too long for a normal Semitic epithet.

8 It is remarkable that the religious discrepancies between Kuttamuwa's inscription and contemporary texts commissioned by Samalian kings go hand-in-hand with linguistic differences. Pardee (2009) has demonstrated that the dialect of Kuttamuwa represents an archaic dialect of Aramaic that is situated typologically between Samalian (Ya'udic) and Old Aramaic.

9 The intermediate case between the full integration of Ea in Neo-Hittite official religion and Kuttamuwa's idiosyncratic pantheon is the worship of the Semitic goddess Baalat, rendered as (DEUS)*pa-ha-la-ti-* in Luvian, by Urahilina, king of Hama. *Pace* Hawkins (2000: 400a), who reads the same name as Urhilina and interprets it as Hurrian, I believe that Urahilina had a Luvian name '(having a) great gate'. Beside Baalat, Urahilina also worshipped the Luvian Storm-god Tarhunt (HAMA 4 §§8–9). It is not clear whether he was the only devotee of Baalat among the Neo-Hittite kings of Hama or if the worship of this goddess was a part of the local dynastic cult, but at any rate it did not spread to the other Neo-Hittite states.

DEUS accompanies neither Ea nor El, and a *scriptio difficilior* is chosen for rendering each of the two names (LITUUS instead of ‹a› in the case of Ea and ‹tà› instead of ‹la› in the case of El). In addition, the choice of the LITUUS sign appears to underscore connotations of Ea that were different from those intended by the author of the inscription. It is difficult to be rid of the impression that the Karkamiš scribe deliberately tried to obfuscate Aralani's religious message. If so, he succeeded in his endeavour to the extent that the mention of these two gods eluded the understanding of the previous editors of his inscription.

The probative value of the scenarios presented in this section is not uniform. There is more evidence for the secondary chthonic associations of Ea in Syria than for the celestial re-interpretation of El in the same region. The religious syncretism of private pantheons in the multi-cultural society of Iron Age Syria is *prima facie* plausible, but the documentary support adduced for this hypothesis is necessarily limited. In none of the three cases are alternative explanations to be ruled out. I hope, however, to have demonstrated that the new interpretation of TÜNP 1 does not face insurmountable obstacles of historical nature that should prompt one to question its philological validity. A possible world in which the earth belongs to Ea but the sky to El may be deduced from the panoply of North Syrian religious views.

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